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None of this work would have been possible without the constant support of my dear wife, Ann. If it has a certain missionary zeal to it, that will have been inherited, like much else, from my father, Benjamin Sockett. To his treasured memory and to my mother, Dorothy Sockett, this book is dedicated.

Hugh Sockett (1993). *The Moral Base of Teacher Professionalism*. Teachers College: New York.

CHAPTER 1

The Moral Core of Professionalism in Teaching

From our childhood in school we can usually recall good and bad teachers. The bad teacher was lazy, spiteful, ineffective, and inefficient and often actually made us dislike the subject matter so much that we believe we can trace our mathematical incompetence or our hatred of poetry to the disastrous influence of one individual. A good teacher was efficient, enthusiastic, or passionate about the subject, as well as fair and concerned for us as individuals. These qualities were often expressed in kindness and friendship—or even in quite eccentric ways. In good teaching there seem to be elements of art, craft, vocation, and technique (Gowin, 1981; Greene, 1986). But however teaching is conceived, we must try to make the standards of professionalism clear so as to offer a guide to novices, to develop appropriate ways of evaluation, to find ways for improvement, and to inform the public of what we stand for.

CATEGORIES OF PROFESSIONALISM

The continuing search for standards and for best practice is at the heart of professionalism in teaching. Most teachers, and indeed most people, are unable to research or record teaching. They learn about good teaching as witnesses—sometimes as students, sometimes as visitors, and sometimes as professional learners in classrooms (Elliott & Adelman, 1974; Mohr & MacLean, 1987). I was a witness to the following three teachers, whose work, for different reasons, has left me in awe. Taken together, their work adds up to a provisional account of the categories of professional teaching and gives us a common base for discussion of professional issues throughout this book.

Mrs. Simpson and Moral Education

Some 30 five-year-old children were clustered around Gabrielle Johnson in a carpeted corner of a classroom in a school built in 1932. Gabrielle,

a student teacher, had started the day nervously, telling her class a tale Bernard Shaw would have recognized as *Androcles and the Lion*. Questions and comments poured out after the drama had been unfolded. Outside the room the class's regular teacher, Mrs. Simpson, was talking to a middle-aged man in dungarees who was painting a new door that would give access to the large grass plot around which the school had been built. As the story ended and the children bustled about the classroom to begin their writing or drawing about Androcles and his escapade, Mrs. Simpson came into the classroom, had a brief word with Gabrielle, and asked the class to listen. As a witness, this is how I remember her remarks.

"Mr. Thomas has come to paint the new door this morning," she said in a very quiet voice, "and I think we ought not to go near it until the paint's dry. Can anyone tell me why?"

One or two murmurs and then several hands were raised:

"Because we might get paint on our clothes, miss."

"That's right, Sheila, but does that matter?"

"Because it would look all messy on my skirt, and my mum would have to clean it off."

"Yes," said the teacher, "Sheila's right. Mum will have to clean your clothes if you get paint on them, won't she?" Various voices added comments on their mother's washing habits, and one small aspiring painter said, "The painter's clothes get very mucky."

"But they are really overalls," Mrs. Simpson immediately pointed out, "like the overalls you wear when you paint, aren't they, Wayne? Why else do you think we mustn't go near the paint?"

"Because Mrs. Higgins [the school principal] wouldn't like it," said another child.

"Because the door would get all messed up," said Yvonne, a diffident little girl standing near the teacher with her arm cocked around her ear as if to protect herself from the surprise of her interjection.

"Does that matter?" said the teacher, "It's bound to get dirty sometime."

"Oh yes," replied Yvonne, more confident now, "but the painter's work would get all spoilt."

"And Mrs. Higgins wants us to keep the hallway neat and tidy," added Kevin.

"That's right," said Mrs. Simpson, "So we want to keep clear of the door today, don't we? Or we'll get painty clothes and Mum will have to wash them, the painter's work will be spoilt, and the hallway will look untidy and spoilt so we won't enjoy it as much. Do you understand that, Paul? Is that right, Lesley? Does anybody not understand that?" A general murmur of acknowledgment. "Thank you, Miss Johnson," she ended as she slipped out into the corridor,

leaving the space for blue lions and red Androcleses to make their way from the children's imaginations onto paper.

This was a brilliant cameo of moral or social education in four or five minutes. Simple and immediate to the children; comprehensive in its attention to the interests of all who might be concerned—mother, painter, the school, everybody; the use of "we" not simply as a heuristic but as a way of stressing the notion of community; building on the children's answers, not dismissing the rogue who would be a painter but using his answer to make a point. No question of rules and orders. Apparently so easy. Confident, stylish, elegant, unplanned questioning of young children bringing out the fundamental feature of moral agency and democratic citizenship, namely, concern for the interests of others and ourselves; obviously a pattern built into the fabric of her everyday work as a professional.

Mrs. Simpson shows a clear understanding of what becoming moral is and an acute pedagogical sensitivity to the teaching opportunity. She demonstrates how the "foundations of any subject can be taught to anybody at any age in some form" (Bruner, 1974, p. 12). I was indeed a privileged witness, seeing this example of highly professional practice in teaching as I was sitting at the back of the room ready to observe Gabrielle's student teaching. When I asked Gabrielle what she thought of what Mrs. Simpson had said and done, she could not recall it, except to say that Mrs. Simpson had told them not to mess with the paint. As a student teacher she had not the experience to know what best practice is; more likely she was preoccupied with my presence as an assessor, as a "hostile" witness. Gabrielle taught competently, but she had not got to the point of seeing other people teach through the eyes of a learner.

Mrs. Simpson was an expert. She provides a stunning riposte and example to those who think there is nothing much to being a teacher, or that teachers need neither training nor the opportunity to reflect constantly on their practice. The expert professionalism lay in the ability to construct a learning experience based on carefully chosen questions, to take each child's answer seriously and make something of it, to define the problem as a community responsibility rather than a matter of discipline, and to develop the children's minds through the use of reason rather than authority. It encapsulated excellent technique with moral concern.

Tom Stevenson and the Teaching of History

My colleague Tom has been in the profession some time. In his laconic way he seemed always able to get students enthralled and excited with anything on the history curriculum. He could get good work out of them, apparently without much effort, whatever their future ambitions.

Yet Tom was always at ease. He was the teacher who would begin a series of lessons on the Greeks by walking into class and saying, "Does anyone here speak Greek?" Students would look at him quizzically, thinking he should be locked up—if they didn't know something was up his sleeve. Then he'd ask them conversational questions, and every time an English word with Greek etymology cropped up, he'd write it on the board: *cinema*, *camera*, *photograph*, *politics*, and so on. "You speak Greek," he'd conclude, "if you speak English."

The history of the Elizabethan age was his forte, though he had been a Japanese specialist. I arranged with him to attend a lesson on the Spanish Armada, the huge sea-borne army that King Philip II of Spain used in an abortive attempt to invade England in 1588. The class was a typical group of alienated 14-year-olds. As we walked to the classroom, I asked how he would approach the subject. "Not sure," he said, "I've got some detailed plans, but I think I'm going to trash them today. Somehow they have to experience it." So I expected some histrionics about the naval battle, the swish of sabers, the blast of cannon, and the howls of the wounded—the usual stuff when you want students of this age and ability to enjoy history.

"Een zee hills behind Cadith," Tom began, "leeved Antonio Manana, zee 17-year-old son of Maria and José Manana." In the first 20 minutes he held the class spellbound as he told the basic story of the Armada, in his dreadful mock-Spanish accent, from the point of view of a poor Spanish farming kid. We heard how Antonio was recruited by force, was quickly trained on board a Spanish galleon, was blessed by the priests, and prayed regularly to Santa Maria Compostella. We heard how Antonio saw the leading general (the Duke of Medina Sidonia) being sick and how he had to clean it up; how he drank more wine than he should have; how peaceful the sea was; and how, drunk like the other sailors, he watched in horror the approach of the English fireships in the night (the first major assault on the Armada by the English fleet). The class erupted with glee at Antonio's sudden grasp through the haze of "madeera vine" that he was seeing "vireships" and how the sheer terror made him leap over the side and swim to the French shore.

This was the Armada of the counterhero, not a story of wise or foolish admirals. It was a brilliant way to get youngsters to identify, not merely with a story, but with someone who had had a part in history to which they could relate. How much more easily they could then grapple, in cooperative learning groups of either Spanish or English sailors, with a construction of their story that had to contain the accurate facts—numbers of men on the ships, their tonnage, the command structure, the conditions, and the details of the voyage.

But it also led them gently into the issues of bias in history—of what stories look like from different sides and what cultures make of their histories. His pedagogic device of dividing them into groups of English and Spaniards was a brilliant elision of subject and pedagogy. Tom was courteously translating (Bruner, 1974) a set of major political events for children of barely mediocre attainment, slight motivation, and no academic expectations. Where Mrs. Simpson used questions to get the children into morality as a fundamental mode of human thought, Tom used his histrionic talent, his knowledge, and his overwhelming enthusiasm to illustrate the most significant feature of understanding ourselves through our history—that we tell stories as we see them. Yet what still strikes me about him was his courage, his preparedness to take risks, notwithstanding his exceptional confidence and maturity for a young teacher. He was always searching for innovations—and sometimes they failed—because the risks were worth taking if history could live for his classes.

Elizabeth Beck and Learning Not to Shout

To my mind, Mrs. Simpson and Tom Stevenson were mature teachers of perspicuous talent. Elizabeth Beck was a student teacher working in a classroom for the third period of field experience. She showed immense determination in wrestling with a major difficulty. She demonstrated an intense commitment to improving her practice.

She had a fifth-grade class whose teacher was Mrs. Old. From Elizabeth's observation notes of Mrs. Old and the class, it was clear that she believed that all the children were underachieving: They had poor reading levels, produced sloppy writing, and were uninspired in their artwork; moreover, they were working in a dismal and unattractive classroom atmosphere devastated by a constant earthquake of noise. Mrs. Old, as Elizabeth recorded, shouted all the time, raising the decibels to command attention; the class shouted her. On the basis of her observation notes, she constructed a strategy that was an attack on all fronts. Elizabeth did not know how she was going to cope with the problem of noise if it persisted. It did. She tried ignoring it. She tried pleading with the class by inventing headaches. She was determined not to resort to traditional disciplinary methods, which, for her, just meant defeat. She tried playing music quietly to distract attention. She attacked the classwork with gusto, indeed with brilliance, but nothing seemed to alter the noise. For two weeks her evaluation notes on each day returned to new strategies for noise reduction, each latest attempt being subjected to fierce critical scrutiny. Finally she told herself, "I have fallen into the trap. I am shouting. Tomorrow I will not raise my voice for a whole day."

Her notes for that Monday recorded that, just before lunchtime, Mrs. Old (who had been asked not to be in the room when Elizabeth was teaching) came into the class because she heard the students' noise but had not heard Elizabeth's usual loud response. So Mrs. Old shouted at them and left. But, as Elizabeth noted in her journal on Tuesday evening, during the day children had to come close to her to ask her questions (since she was using only her usual speaking voice), and they gradually began to ask one another to keep quiet so that they could hear what Miss Beck was saying. On Wednesday, first thing, she brought the whole class around her and said very quietly that she was never going to raise her voice again and that she wanted them all to try to work more quietly. She had tried this before without success. But this time, after each change of subject, after each break, she did the same and then began a "noise report." By Friday afternoon, the noise level had dropped. She had only to say "shhh!" and there was instant silence. I spent several hours with her three weeks later and read her journal. I also watched her teach a bustling group of contented, hard-working children. She had excellent qualities as a teacher, and it was a privilege to watch such a professional. But for me the heart of her excellence, at this stage in her career, lay in her unassailable commitment to improvement, to self-criticism, and to changing her strategies without sacrificing her principles. Methodologically, she was exceptionally rigorous.

Character, Commitment, Subject, Pedagogy, and Beyond

I was a happenstance observer of Mrs. Simpson, a colleague of Tom's, and an evaluator-supervisor in Elizabeth's classroom, a witness of different kinds to the quality of their work. Any education professional will respond to the quality I have tried to record. Each teacher manifested immense care and commitment—dedication, if you like. Each was a teaching occasion that I felt privileged to see, and from which I learned.

Watching others teach seems almost a natural process from which we can learn as teachers. We may pick out something we can use; we may emulate a person's style. We certainly are refreshed by watching a real teacher, but we can also learn at second hand. The movie *Stand and Deliver*, for example, teaches and inspires us through the work of Jaime Escalante, even when he is splendidly portrayed by an actor (for further comment on this movie, see Chapter 4). Journalists can watch teaching and convey acute perceptions of a teacher to us, as Freedman's (1990) record of Jessica Seigel reveals. Sadly, many professional teachers never watch their colleagues teach. The "cellular" character of teaching seems to prevent opportunities for learning through witness that would enhance this very natural process (Kottkamp, Provenzo, & Cohn, 1986; Lortie, 1975). Moreover, watching

others or working with them is a part of the collegiality necessary in professionalism (see Chapter 2).

Mrs. Simpson, Tom, and Elizabeth offer us a picture of the teacher as a professional in which four major categories of professionalism stand out: character, commitment, subject knowledge, and pedagogical (or methodological) knowledge.

First, the individual *character* of each teacher is a critical component in professionalism. Each teacher displays different sorts of virtues, for example, patience, courage, determination, or respect for children. In our obsession with performance, we ignore character in teachers, perhaps because we believe that all such judgments would be subjective and nonscientific. But we miss so much of teaching quality when we ignore character. In fact, as Reeves' (1990) study of the relationship between John F. Kennedy's performance and character demonstrates, coming to grips with a person's character is critical to understanding human action and its motives. It is, I think, impossible to give a comprehensive account of what a teacher does without describing the person within the teaching act.

Second, Elizabeth and Tom see themselves as committed to *change and to continuous improvement*. For them, a teacher never reaches a plateau of achievement. The enterprise is too complex, and individuals change too much. Striving to adjust to change seems inevitable for a professional if teaching is to be good, since children in classrooms are never replicas of those who have gone before. They are individuals, each with their own particular history, personality, perspective, and problems. Striving to do better is a constant. Striving therefore becomes a necessary habit and a condition for teaching excellence. That need not be a source of discomfort, for the only things worth doing in life, as Lawrence Stenhouse (1983) put it, are the things worth falling short of. Every context is a potential challenge.

Third, Mrs. Simpson and Tom demonstrate the depth of *knowledge and understanding* teachers have to have of what they teach. There is no substitute for this, and without it a teacher is something of a charlatan. Tom is so confident of his historical knowledge that he can translate it with such vigor (and justified license) to ensure that the subject is alive for his students. Mrs. Simpson is morally highly educated. She has not simply "learned" that you have to teach community responsibility or concern for others because the school board says so. It is part of her knowledge and her understanding of the world. The moral knowledge she has is different from historical, scientific, mathematical, or any other type of knowledge. But moral knowledge and understanding is as much required by every professional teacher as is knowledge of other "subjects" in an appropriate "courteously translated" form.

Finally, each teacher described has immense *pedagogic strengths*. They are actually good at the "hows" of teaching—questioning, dramatization, class control, the strategies and tactics about which modern teaching seems so obsessive at the expense of other vital categories. Most difficult to capture in the work of teachers is "why they do what they do when," those seemingly inexplicable tacit understandings and insights that people like Tom and Mrs. Simpson manifest.

Much more needs to be said about each of these central categories of practice and of teacher professionalism: character, commitment, subject knowledge, and pedagogical (or methodological) knowledge. These are the stuff of classroom actions. Yet they are not the whole story. Professionalism in teaching goes further. For outside the classroom a teacher has wider obligations and working relationships with colleagues and with parents in the exercise of his or her role as a teacher. Professionalism requires that we go beyond classroom performance or classroom activity as descriptors of teaching acts to the complete and complex role a teacher fulfills. Public education needs teachers who are able not only to shine in the four categories mentioned within the classroom but also to undertake the demands of partnership with other professionals, of collaborative leadership, and of a wider role within a school. Teachers can also contribute to emerging visions of education and seek, as citizens and professionals, to resolve some of the complexities of political disagreements and to be public ambassadors for education. This wide role, reaching beyond classroom to school and public, is particularly important for a democratic society, for the teacher is a main purveyor of democratic civilization.

However, this more comprehensive notion of excellence and teacher professionalism is not one that calls for teachers to be social workers, priests, and counselors as well. It is not to advocate a supraprofessional role for teachers by demanding that they provide an amalgam of other professional skills. It is simply to urge teachers to reach out beyond classroom performance to commitments to colleagues with whom one works and parents whose children are in one's care and, beyond that, to the social enterprise of education. This broad conception of the arena for professionalism underpins the arguments in this book.

PROFESSIONALISM AND PROFESSIONALIZATION

As a witness of these teachers, I saw examples of *professionalism*, of excellence in professional practice (Downie, 1990). I believe it is accurate to say that these teachers were professionals. But such a claim says nothing about their status, that is, whether the community values them, how much they are

paid, whether they have secretarial support, whether they have paid annual leave, fringe benefits, entitlement to study leave, whether their profession governs itself, and so on. To say they are professional in the contexts I have outlined is a description of their practice, not their status.

Professionalism describes the quality of practice. It describes the manner of conduct within an occupation, how members integrate their obligations with their knowledge and skill in a context of collegiality and of contractual and ethical relations with clients. Every action within the role is to be judged by standards specific to the profession. The collection of those constantly changing standards is the corpus of understandings, values, insights, and knowledge we call our professionalism. Hoyle (1980) sensibly distinguishes this conception of professionalism from *professionalization*, which is the process whereby an occupation (rather than an individual) gains the status of a profession. When we professionalize teaching we change its status; but a teacher's professionalism is apparent in his or her practice.

This distinction is embedded in our language and our understanding. For example, Tom Stevenson was highly paid, a departmental chair, a professional (in practice and status terms) if ever there was one. At times he may have uttered chauvinist remarks about his female colleagues that were—well, what word do we naturally use?—simply "not professional" or "unprofessional." Our description of his remarks as unprofessional has to do not with his status (which remains as it is), but with his practice. When we use "professional" in this sense, we are using it as the adjective of professionalism. Another example: Suppose Mr. Simpson was a computer scientist who had never been trained as a teacher or even taught anyone. His wife invited him to come to teach some of her class about the computers that had just arrived. He taught brilliantly, doing what we would call a "really professional" job. Again, it is his practice to which we are referring, not his status. He does not have any professional status, though we correctly call his performance "really professional." Any general search for excellence in teaching, as indicated by the National Board for Professional Teaching Standards (1989), is not a direct concern with professionalization, that is, with teacher *status*, but with professionalism, the quality of the *practice*.

Professional practice has many implications for professional status and its accompanying politics. A profession—as an organization, whether it be teaching, law, or dentistry—must consider both problems of its practice and problems of its status, as well as how status can be protected through standards of membership. Sometimes members of an occupation that has the status of a profession become corrupt and inefficient, thus demeaning the very idea of their profession in their practice. Attorneys are disbarred; priests are defrocked; accountants have their licenses revoked. Sadly, as a

group we teachers seem to have no sanction to impose on someone whose actions run totally counter to anything we might regard as professional, like a former Virginia school principal convicted of drug dealing to children in 1989. He can still claim to be a teacher. As with individuals, so with organizations. Professions as organizations may also atrophy, fail to police themselves, or be blind to the social context of their work.

Professionals presumably believe in the purpose of their profession, be it health (medicine), justice (law), or education (teaching), and they will want the public to commit to these values. Improving their practice will support claims to improved status, provided the basic values of the profession command public support and appropriate financial remuneration. The most obvious common danger is that status (better salary, for example) will become a goal to which practical improvement is subservient, rather than the other way around, and that leads to a poor public image of a profession (Sockett, 1988). Indeed, some argue that professions are in such disrepute that talk of profession and professionalism is outmoded and that professions have become simple monopolies (Friedman, 1972; Gouldner, 1978; Illich, 1977; Sockett, 1989c; Steifels, 1979). From this perspective, teaching should avoid being described as a profession altogether. Yet the important distinction remains. Even if we do not like the way in which professions now are, and/or even if we do not like to use the word *profession*, some word or phrase will still be needed to distinguish those occupations whose members see themselves committed primarily to quality of practice or to an ideal of service of some kind from other occupations whose purposes are simply utilitarian and seen by their members as such. Whether we choose to use the word *profession* or not, teaching has some moral purpose and an ideal of service in the minds of many who profess it.

This distinction between practice (and professionalism) and status (and professionalization) seems important to capture to provide a conceptual framework enabling us to discern the relation between status and practice more clearly. Issues of status are very important to members of a profession, but my focus in this book is on practice, its standards, and the professionalism implicit in that practice.

THE TEACHER: A GENERIC VIEW

John Houseman, acting the well-known part of the crusty senior law professor in the TV series "The Paper Chase," once exclaimed robustly to a junior member of faculty: "I would never have become a judge or a diplomat. First and foremost I am a teacher—teacher, do you understand?—someone who imparts wisdom to the young." Houseman's charac-

ter was picking out the generic sense of teacher as opposed to the specific sense in which we would talk of a mathematics teacher, a classroom teacher, or a university teacher.

But who counts as a teacher? *Teacher* is taken in this book to be a generic term, and Griffin (1986) paints an excellent portrait of such an ideal. It covers all those who engage on an occupational basis (full time or part time) in the activities of getting others to learn with a primarily educational end in view. This is the intent of a teacher's practice, although it does not exclude the possibility that he or she may do research, administer institutions, or whatever. The teacher as educator has a primary concern for the development of the individual learner as a person as well as for his or her mastery of whatever is being taught. In this view, university and college professors of education, school principals and educational administrators, as well as classroom teachers, are teachers and thereby putative members of the teaching profession (see Chapter 2). (Many other people teach: clergy, parents, nurses, for example. But teaching is not the rationale for their occupation, as it is for professors and principals.)

Fenstermacher (1986) also regards teaching as a "generic" term, but he is looking at it as a verb describing a person's actions, performances, and activities. My use of *teaching* in this book complements that analysis by focusing on the social role and the professional occupation of teaching, within which actions, performances, and activities are played out. Clearly this usage is stipulative and needs some justification.

Tom Stevenson was not just a classroom teacher of history; he also had a role as department chair (which meant having responsibilities for young teachers like me, for advising colleagues, and so forth). He played an active role in the government of the school, for example, at department chairs' meetings. He set up a United Nations Association, taking on a role as the teacher who wanted to get the institution to give serious thought to international issues. He mentored students and young teachers. He ran drama productions, drawing in parents to the school. Such roles multiply for all teachers; to one child, Tom was "like a father."

Typically his career might have developed another way. He might have become a principal after several years as an assistant, perhaps even finishing his doctorate early and going into teacher education. With a specialization in administration, he might have taken up a superintendent's role, finally returning to open a new large high school in his late 40s. Yet his profession is teaching, although his career has carried him into different professional jobs outside the classroom but within the profession.

It will be objected that "teacher" is not a role played by university professors and school superintendents; even principals are not usually called teachers. Yet any profession has its researchers, its specialists, and its

administrators. The attorney general is a lawyer, not a *former* lawyer. The surgeon general is a doctor, not a *former* doctor. But if either of these appointees had been teachers, particularly classroom teachers, they would be called *former* teachers. Doctors and lawyers become administrators and researchers in the health or legal systems without ceasing thereby to be doctors and lawyers. Unfortunately, teachers and teaching do not seem to have grown up like these other professions, perhaps because of the lowly status of the profession. Career progression is still seen only in terms of getting out of classrooms, of getting out of the role of *schoolteacher*. The result is that we only know what careers look like for those who want to move into satellite occupations of our profession (research, administration, teacher education). We seem to have no generally recognized core conception of what a teaching career looks like, particularly one spent in the classroom with the obligations I have described (see Chapter 2). Indeed, the dominance of satellite occupations prevents the emergence of a single generic conception of teaching.

The emergence of public education, K-Ph.D., has included the development of teacher education and its shift from normal schools into universities. With the hard pressure for research—as a satellite to the occupation—the idea of research and teaching being naturally bound together by a single purpose has become much harder to achieve. That split has also contributed to the problems of quality at all levels on which there is now so much national attention. For Goodlad (1990), the answer is to bring the university and school cultures together to enhance both teaching and teacher education. I agree, but go further. We can begin to see ourselves as one single profession devoted to the purposes of education.

This book therefore focuses on the practice of all those who teach, the generic view as I have called it. I seek to discover qualities and standards, as well as ways of looking at teaching, which articulate teacher professionalism. I refer consistently to the practical situations of the classroom teacher's work, but the book does not attempt to describe ideal features of pedagogical practice in any systematic way. The work of each individual teacher is part of a particular context. That is a context bound by socioeconomic conditions of children's parents, by a school's history, by the character of the principal, by the individual teacher's autobiography, and by much else. But every educational and teaching context remains a moral context.

THE MORAL CORE OF PROFESSIONALISM

Mrs. Simpson, Tom, and Elizabeth help us to develop a perspective on teaching that includes the character of an individual person in a complex role that goes beyond classroom and school to public education itself.

Anything within the role is open to judgment in terms of the qualities of professionalism the individual displays. Professionals must also judge themselves on the quality of their professionalism. The generic teacher does not just get people to learn within an educational endeavor, for teaching is an interpersonal activity directed at shaping and influencing (not molding), by means of a range of pedagogical skills, what people become as persons through whatever it is that is taught—high school calculus, motor skills to autistic children, or singing and dancing for a dramatic production in a college. As a teacher is one who helps to shape what a person becomes, so the moral good of every learner is of fundamental importance in every teaching situation (Peters, 1966; Tom, 1984). The character and the commitment of the teacher is part of each context. It is necessarily a part of professionalism.

I am describing a view of teaching as primarily moral (i.e., dedicated to an individual's welfare) rather than instrumental (e.g., for economic reasons) or noneducational (e.g., for custodial reasons). From this view, three things follow:

1. Our discourse and our vocabulary in teaching will become very different as we use a moral language in teaching and education.
2. We will need to see technique(s) as subservient to moral considerations.
3. The present system of public education will have to be transformed if education is to be authentically moral.

Professionalism and Moral Language

Teaching in an educational context is strongly connected to the betterment of individuals. It is therefore impossible to talk extensively about teachers and teaching without a language of morality, but that seems an unfamiliar form of discourse when we discuss teaching. For example, in a discussion I held with a group of teachers in 1991, one teacher found himself unable to use moral language. He used a medical metaphor to get across what he wanted to say about children becoming good or bad, talking of metaphorical lobotomies as a task for the school in moral education. It was as if he had never used moral language in his professional situation. This is not necessarily unusual. Bellah and his associates (1985) demonstrate the inability of many people to examine their moral predicaments because they simply do not have the vocabulary. They have not been taught it and are embarrassed to use it. Straightforward moral words—*courage, honesty, kindness, carefulness, patience, compassion*, and so forth—are among those we need to recover if we are to describe with any proper depth aspects of what a professional is and what a professional does. Tom's courage, Mrs. Simpson's

patience and carefulness, Elizabeth's determination and courage—these are all descriptions we have stopped using to describe or evaluate what teachers do in classrooms.

Discussions of professionalism, then, are moral discussions. Recall Tom's mild chauvinism. Who cares? Does it matter? Surely it only matters if it is seen as morally reprehensible; it is only on moral grounds that we care one way or the other how Tom behaves toward women. We would care much less if "treatment of women" were just a matter of etiquette, like "never eat peas with your knife," or a matter of superstition, like walking under ladders. Or take Elizabeth's approach to her own self-improvement; why do we think that's so wonderful? Because of its clear relation to her concern for children. We would be less impressed, morally speaking, if her only reason for self-improvement was, "Oh, I just want to get good grades." That egoistic answer is rather different from the concern for others expressed in "I ought to get these children learning to their full potential."

Moral character matters in teaching. We cannot understand Mrs. Simpson, Tom, and Elizabeth without it. If we play down the importance of the moral by taking little account of the significance of character, we face the real danger of losing our capacity to see teachers as people, people who are beset with all the problems of living in a complex society that continuously influences the way in which they work in their chosen role. Character can be shown in altruism. The task of shaping what people become morally attracts many whose motive is idealistic (Goodlad, 1990) and altruistic (Lortie, 1975). Many teachers have a moral vision, a moral sense, and a moral motive (however mixed up it may be in any individual person). Psychologists may describe this as *intrinsic motivation*, but this is a somewhat mechanistic term blurring the nuances of a moral vocabulary that allows us to describe teachers as people. Attention to character as a part of moral language invites teachers to help children use and understand that vocabulary and will allow us to develop much stronger rationales for the education we deliver.

Teaching Technique Governed by the Moral

Following this line of argument, there can be no such thing as a purely empirical or technical judgment about a teacher or a teaching act. Much of what we read in the literature of education and much of what we are told is "good" in the process of schooling is morally totally unexamined. Our conversation is dominated by mechanistic language: strategies, skills, time on task, and so forth.

As we look at the work of Mrs. Simpson, Tom Stevenson, and Elizabeth Beck, we can see that teaching is not a technical operation, like the

work of the dental hygienist. Nor is it like servicing a car, programming a computer, policing a district, leaping from a trapeze, or baking a cake. We have come to see teaching as a set of mechanical performances judged by the quality of the product, almost as if the person of the teacher was a ghost in a machine that "produced" learning from raw material, called learners. For example, Skinner (1975) made various recommendations for social engineering, yet he seemed oblivious to the fact that his technical schemes for human improvement had underpinning values that are highly contestable; or maybe he saw them as so obvious as to be beyond argument. But technique in teaching itself implies a view about what a human being is, what a person is, and that is at the very least evaluative and certainly moral.

A technique in teaching is always subservient to a moral end, but it can also be evaluated morally as a means to that end. Effective questioning is different from interrogation under torture. Lecturing is different from the harangues of the propagandist. Rewarding and punishing children is different from changing the behavior of rats or pigeons to "produce the desired effects." An effective school is not simply a smoothly running organization (like a concentration camp) but one in which individual autonomy is respected and promoted. Behavior modification techniques are on a moral not a technical borderline, witness the treatment of Alex in *A Clockwork Orange*. Lovass (1967) experimented in constantly shouting orders at children with schizophrenia, a morally uncertain practice whatever its results. The differences are moral.

Moral Professionalism and a Transformed System

We should note at this stage that, from the moral point of view, certain features of our system are profoundly disturbing. First, we do not take the needs of each child seriously; rather we have built systems to accommodate children who fall into categories. Second, we abuse our professionals. Superintendents have a short shelf life. Teachers are overregulated and controlled (Kean, 1986). Universities rarely protect their teacher educators, and as institutions they seem uninterested in education in schools (Goodlad, 1990). Third, our professional language, both in school and in research, largely ignores significant moral issues. If we are to take the claims for moral professionalism seriously, our ways of working will need to be drastically transformed. For example, if we look at ways of working in modern business practice, especially in the process of continuous improvement and total quality management principles, we will find considerable stress on the ethical character of working relationships. Such ideas are important for educators to examine in depth as we search for organizational frameworks that can assist the installation of professionalism in educational, as opposed to commercial, institutions (Sokkett, 1989c).

THE FOUR DIMENSIONS OF PROFESSIONALISM

There are four primary dimensions in teacher professionalism: (1) the professional community, (2) professional expertise, (3) professional accountability, and (4) the profession's ideal of service.

The professional community. Teachers most often work in institutions, and within those institutions in formal communities such as departments and informal communities such as a club. They are members of educational institutions and subinstitutions; departments, committees, grade levels, schools, and unions. They work in universities, colleges, and schools and are members of all kinds of associations and groups. Each of these creates sets of professional relationships that call, in different ways, for levels of trust and collegiality—in other words, for moral relationships. Different though these groupings are, professional teachers have a common identity as members of an occupation getting people to learn with an educational end in view and seeking for standards of best practice to pursue that end. Whatever the actual situation, it makes sense to describe that group as potentially a professional community. Such a professional community is not an assemblage of utopian purity. It provides a focus for those who wish to maintain certain standards and to tell the public they serve about those standards and commitments.

Professional expertise. Teachers are concerned with knowledge, understanding, or insight in two ways. They hand on a heritage of expertise and experience, frequently construed as the disciplined study of a subject or the acquisition of skills that are necessary to, or a part of, those disciplines. That defines in major part what the profession seeks to do. It necessarily involves matters of truth. However, as we have seen with Mrs. Simpson, Tom, and Elizabeth, there are also matters of pedagogical knowledge, the "hows" of teaching, that can also be described as knowledge. These two are interrelated and may be described as the professional expertise that is contained in a professional's practice.

Professional accountability. The professional teacher is morally responsive to the client's needs (whether the client be defined as the child, the parent or caretaker, or the public through the mechanism of the state). The teacher has moral obligations to these individuals or groups, which can be expressed through relationships of professional accountability. These moral obligations may be interpreted in specific or general ways. A specific performance standard could be viewed by a community as morally important to reach. Others may judge both efficiency and moral commitment through

the successes or failures of students. Accountability in moral terms could be more generally seen as keeping to ethical standards appropriate in a professional teacher.

The professional ideal of service. Finally, professions work within some moral vision of human betterment, some set of professional ideals which describe the moral purpose of the enterprise and to which altruists and others are attracted. Obviously we see this in the Hippocratic oath, in lawyers' commitments to justice, and in teachers' commitments to education. An ideal in teaching would have to be seen as an ideal of service of some kind, no doubt with constituent pieces. In every case, ideals are likely to be a consistent source of disagreement and debate, examination and reinterpretation. Ideals require constant inquiry.

These four dimensions of teacher professionalism—the professional community, professional expertise, professional accountability, and professional ideals—provide a structure for moral debate focused on practice. Each is a massive topic that cannot be fully explored within the confines of this book. My intent is to present a broad vision, not a fully detailed account of each, for it is my overall approach to the topic that first needs to be articulated and examined. If the insistence on moral language and the approach through these four dimensions makes sense, more detailed exploration of each dimension will later be necessary. For the moment my focus is on the larger picture. That is a risk, for it is likely to leave moral philosophers dissatisfied with the abbreviated arguments, while others will find the philosophical basis getting in the way of more elaborated implications for the development of the profession. I think the risk is worth taking.